GNAMMA RESEARCH · PRIMARY TEXTS

المنطق

al-Manṭiq

Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar

Reading edition

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INTRODUCTION

Introduction to Logic

المدخل

INTRODUCTION

Why logic is needed

الحاجة إلى المنطق

God has made the human being naturally capable of speech and has given him a tongue as its instrument. Yet he still needs something to regulate and correct his speech, so that it accords with the language he learns in both the forms and materials of its expressions. He therefore needs, first, a teacher who habituates him to its use and, second, rules to consult that guard his tongue against error: these are grammar and morphology.

Likewise, God has endowed the human being with an intellective power and an aptitude for thought. Even so, people make many mistakes in thinking: they take something for a cause that is not a cause, regard as a consequence something that does not follow, and mistake what is not a demonstration for a demonstration. One may even hold a true conclusion on the strength of unsound premises. There is therefore a need for something that corrects thought, directs it towards valid inference, and trains it in the proper organisation of its operations.

Logicians describe logic as an instrument by which one can protect oneself against error and correct one's thinking. Grammar does not give one the ability to speak; it guides one to speak correctly. Similarly, logic does not impart the ability to think; it guides thought towards correctness.

Our need for logic, then, is the correction of our thinking—and how great that need is. If someone objects that people learn logic yet still reason badly, we answer that people learn grammar and morphology yet still make mistakes in speech. This happens because they have not acquired a settled mastery of the discipline, have failed to observe its rules when required, or have applied them incorrectly.

1. **Translator's note:** The distinction between the possession of a rational faculty and a trained habit (malaka) of correctly exercising it is central here. Logic is an instrumental discipline, not a substitute for intellectual attention.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Arabic text, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH) · p. 8–9 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=9&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

Definition and instrumental character of logic

تعريف علم المنطق — المنطق آلة

Logic is accordingly defined as “a rule-governed instrument whose observance safeguards the mind against error in thinking.” Attend especially to the word *observance*. Learning logic does not automatically protect someone from mistakes, just as learning grammar does not automatically prevent errors of speech. The rules must be applied when they are needed.

Consider also the word *instrument*. Logic belongs to the instrumental sciences, which are employed for an end other than simply knowing their own propositions. It sets out the general, correct procedures by which thinking may attain truths not yet known, much as algebra investigates procedures for solving equations and arriving at unknown quantities.

More precisely, logic teaches general rules of correct reasoning applicable across the sciences. It investigates the structure and arrangement by which the mind moves from the intelligible contents already present to matters as yet unknown. Hence it has been called the *balance*, the *standard*, and the *servant of the sciences*. Even algebra, which served as our comparison, depends upon logical ordering in solving its problems.

A student of logic must therefore work exercises and actually employ its operations during study, as students of mathematics and the natural sciences must do.

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1. **Terminology:** Āla qānūniyya: an instrument governed by rules. The verb rāʿā (‘to observe, heed, apply’) is part of the definition; logic does not promise that mistakes become impossible merely by having studied a textbook.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Arabic text, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH) · p. 9–10 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=10&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

From sensation to intellectual knowledge

العلم — تمهيد

We said that the human being is naturally disposed towards thinking and is capable of acquiring knowledge through an intellectual faculty that distinguishes him from non-rational animals. To clarify what we mean by knowledge and how logic is related to it, we may distinguish stages of cognitive development.

First, the newly born child's soul possesses an innate capacity but no acquired, actual knowledge. As sight, hearing, taste, smell, and touch begin to operate, the soul is affected by the things presented to these senses. This is sensory cognition, the first degree of knowledge and a beginning

from which further knowledge develops. Other animals share some or all of these sensory powers.

Second, the growing child begins to work upon retained sensory forms, comparing one with another—this object is taller, this light is brighter—and combining images into things not encountered externally. A town the child has only heard described may be imagined from previously seen towns. This is imaginative cognition (*ʿilm khayālī*), which some other animals also possess.

Third, cognition extends to particular meanings that are neither material nor measurable: the love shown by parents, the hostility of an enemy, the fear of a frightened person, the grief of someone bereaved, or the joy of a delighted person. This is estimative cognition (*ʿilm wahmī*). It is still not the distinctive perfection of the human intellect.

Fourth, the human being exercises intellect and reasoning over sensible, imaginative, and estimative contents. The intellect discriminates the true from the false, abstracts universal notions from particulars, compares these notions, and proceeds from what it knows to further judgments and conclusions. This is intellectual knowledge in its fullest sense.

The sciences and disciplines aim to cultivate this rational power. Logic, in particular, orders its activity and guards against its being misled by imagination or estimation.

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1. **Translator's note:** This passage is the author's graduated account of acquired cognition. The distinction between the faculty of estimation (wahm), imagination (khayāl), and intellect (ʿaql) is preserved rather than flattening all three into ‘thinking’.
2. **Authorial footnote — source:** In the printed source Muẓaffar explicitly restricts the present discussion to ʿilm ḥuṣūlī (knowledge through an acquired form). Knowledge by presence (ʿilm ḥuḍūrī) differs because the known is present by its very existence, not through an impressed representation. Only the former is here divided into conception and assent.
3. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Arabic text, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH) · p. 10–12 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=11&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

Knowledge as the presence of a form

تعريف العلم

One may ask how these acts of cognition arise in a human being. To make the preceding explanation clearer, look at something before you, then close your eyes and direct your attention towards it. You will find something in yourself as though you were still seeing it. Likewise, after hearing a clock ticking, block your ears but turn your attention to the sound; something of the hearing seems to remain. The experiment can be repeated with the other senses.

On examining these experiences, the author invites us to understand cognition as the reception of the forms of things in the soul, by analogy with the way an image is impressed in a mirror. On this account, knowledge is defined as “the presence of a thing's form to the intellect,” or, equivalently for present purposes, “its being impressed upon the intellect.”

1. **Interpretive note:** This is Muẓaffar's introductory presentation of representational or acquired knowledge, not a claim that every kind of knowledge is reducible to a material impression. See the preceding author's footnote on the distinct case of knowledge by presence.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Arabic text, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH) · p. 12–13 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=13&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

Conception and assent

التصور والتصديق

Draw a triangle: its form comes to be present in the mind. This cognition is called *conception* (taṣawwur), considered here simply as an apprehension without affirmation or judgment. The same is true when you attend to its angles, or picture a horizontal line intersected by a perpendicular and thereby picture two right angles.

Now compare those two right angles with the sum of the triangle's angles. At first you may ask whether they are equal and remain uncertain. Even apprehending the *relation of equality* between them at this point is still mere conception.

Once you demonstrate their equality, however, a further cognitive state arises: you apprehend that the relation accords with reality, and this apprehension entails the soul's judgment and assent. This is called *assent* (taṣdīq), the cognition being named by its inseparable concomitant, the act of affirming that the relation obtains.

Thus the triangle's angles, the two right angles, and their proposed equality can all be conceived without judging. Assent occurs when the mind apprehends the relation as actually corresponding to reality. Recognising a proposition as *not* corresponding to reality is also a kind of assent—namely, a negative judgment.

Notice the qualification. In the broadest usage, conception, apprehension, and knowledge can all refer to the presence of a form to the intellect. Assent itself presupposes such an apprehension; but in the restricted contrast here, *conception* denotes apprehension without judgment, and *assent* denotes apprehension that entails judgment. Consequently, “conception” in the unrestricted sense may comprehend both.

1. **Authorial context:** Muẓaffar's accompanying note relates this account of taṣdīq to Avicenna's discussion in the Ishārāt and to Ṣadr al-Dīn al-Shīrāzī's independent treatise on conception and assent. He does not simply identify taṣdīq with an extra pictorial representation.

2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf Arabic witness · p. 13–15 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=14&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

What can be conceived, and what can be assented to?

بماذا يتعلق التصديق والتصور؟

Assent has only one immediate object: the relation expressed in an assertoric sentence, insofar as the mind judges that relation to correspond—or not correspond—to reality.

Conception, by contrast, can concern four things. First, a single expression: a noun, verb, or particle. Second, the relation asserted in a statement when we are uncertain of it or merely entertain it, as when we consider the possibility that Mars is inhabited without affirming it. Third, the relation expressed by an injunction, prohibition, wish, question, or other non-assertoric utterance; as such, these are not descriptions to be affirmed or denied as corresponding to reality. Fourth, an incomplete expression, such as a genitive phrase, a noun and its adjective, a relative clause, or one member of a conditional construction.

Take the Qurʾānic conditional, “If you count God's blessings, you cannot enumerate them.” Each of its components is apprehended as a component of the conditional, rather than as a separately asserted proposition. Likewise, “God's blessings” is an incomplete genitive expression. The conditional statement taken as a whole, however, is something to which assent may be given.

The logical distinction here concerns the *role in which* an expression is apprehended, not merely whether it contains words capable of forming a statement outside that construction.

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1. **Translator's note:** Muẓaffar uses ‘maʿlūm taṣawwurī’ for a known content apprehended without assent. The conditional's antecedent and consequent do not become independently asserted merely by occurring within a larger proposition.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf Arabic witness · p. 15–16 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=16&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

Certainty, opinion, doubt, and counter-opinion

أقسام التصديق

Assent is divided into *certainty* (yaqīn) and *probable opinion* (ẓann). It consists in preferring one of the two sides of a report—its obtaining or not obtaining. If the mind excludes the alternative altogether, this is certainty; if the alternative remains possible, though less likely, it is opinion.

Consider any report. Either you admit only one possibility, or you regard both alternatives as possible. The first condition is certainty. The second admits three possibilities: the alternatives may be equally balanced, in which case the state is *doubt* (shakk); the content of the report may be preferred, yielding probable opinion (ẓann); or the opposite alternative may be preferred, in which case the report's content is only a weaker apprehension (wahm).

There are thus four states, not five. (1) **Certainty:** you affirm the report and rule out its falsity, or deny it and rule out its truth. (2) **Opinion:** you favor one side while admitting the other as possible. (3) **Counter-opinion:** you entertain one side while favoring its opposite. (4) **Doubt:** you judge the alternatives equally possible.

Two consequences follow. In the classificatory sense used here, doubt and the weaker opinion are not themselves assent; and probable opinion about one side is always the weaker opinion concerning the opposing side. The corresponding terms are relational to whichever side of the proposition is being considered.

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1. **Terminology:** Wahm here denotes the weaker side of a propositional assessment; it is not simply the psychological faculty of estimation described earlier. The identical word is used in two technical contexts.
2. **Authorial note:** The printed apparatus distinguishes a narrower sense of yaqīn: firm, factually correct assent that is not merely accepted by imitation. The chapter's initial division uses the broader sense of firm conviction.
3. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf Arabic witness · p. 16–17 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=17&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

Simple and compound ignorance

الجهل وأقسامه

Ignorance is the absence of knowledge in a subject capable of knowing. We do not call a stone blind, because blindness is the lack of sight in something naturally fitted to see. Similarly, knowledge and ignorance are opposites in the manner of a possession and its privation.

Since knowledge is distinguished into conception and assent, one may speak correspondingly of ignorance affecting conception and ignorance affecting assent. The further distinction between *simple* and *compound* ignorance, however, strictly concerns the latter: ignorance in conception can only be simple.

Simple ignorance is not knowing something while recognising that one does not know it. Compound ignorance occurs when a person does not know something yet believes that he does know it. It comprises two deficiencies: ignorance of the thing and ignorance of that ignorance. Because it includes a mistaken conviction, it belongs to the sphere of assent.

Compound ignorance, Muẓaffar argues, should not be counted as genuine knowledge merely because it includes a firm belief. On his definition, knowledge presents the form of the very thing known. Mistaking a different form for it does not make that form the thing itself. A distant silhouette taken for a human being does not become a human being through the observer's conviction.

The point is about the truth-condition implicit in this account of knowledge, not an assertion that everyone who holds a mistaken belief knows nothing whatever.

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1. **Context:** This passage is useful for distinguishing doxastic firmness from knowledge: a firmly held false conviction remains compound ignorance rather than certainty in the narrower epistemic sense.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf Arabic witness · p. 17–18 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=18&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

Immediate and acquired knowledge

العلم ضروري ونظري — توضيح في الضروري

Both conception and assent are divided into two kinds. The first is *immediate* or self-evident (*ḍarūrī, badīhī*): it does not require a further process of inquiry or discursive thought. Examples include apprehending the concepts of being and non-being and assenting that the whole is greater than its part or that contradictories cannot both obtain.

The second is *discursive* or acquired (*naẓarī, kasbī*): it requires a process of thought. A conclusion about the movement of the earth, or a conceptual account of an unfamiliar phenomenon, may need prior knowledge to be arranged and used in an inquiry.

For immediate cognition it is sufficient that the mind attend to the relevant object without an intervening inferential process. For discursive cognition the mind must perform intellectual operations, much as one manipulates the terms of an algebraic problem, moving from what is already known to the initially unknown.

Self-evident, however, does not mean that every person actually knows every self-evident thing. The disposition of the subject and the conditions of attention matter. Muẓaffar distinguishes five conditions or occasions for the soul's attending to such knowledge: (1) attention rather than distraction, (2) a sound cognitive faculty, (3) functional senses when sense perception is involved, (4) freedom from a misleading sophism, and (5) some non-inferential operation appropriate to the kind of knowledge, such as receiving convergent testimony or undertaking an experiment.

The classification therefore concerns whether the knowledge depends on an *inferential act of thought*, not simply whether attaining it took time or effort.

1. **Translator's note:** Do not translate ḍarūrī in this context as ‘necessary’ in the metaphysical modal sense. The distinction is between epistemic immediacy and discursive acquisition.
2. **Translator's note:** Muẓaffar's fourth condition is especially significant for kalām: a specious argument may obscure an otherwise evident principle, such as the impossibility of simultaneous affirmation and denial. He describes this as a sophism in opposition to an evident truth.
3. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf Arabic witness · p. 18–20 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=19&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

Thought as the intellect's movement between known and unknown

تعريف النظر أو الفكر

By inquiry (*naẓar*) or thinking (*fikr*), Muẓaffar means the performance of an intellectual operation upon what is already present to the mind for the sake of attaining the object sought—knowledge of something previously unknown. More precisely, thought is “the movement of the intellect between the known and the unknown.”

When faced with a problem, one first identifies what kind of unknown it is, then turns to the stock of knowledge relevant to that kind of problem. The intellect searches and compares these contents, arranging them until it finds a combination capable of resolving the difficulty. It then moves from this ordered knowledge to the desired conclusion.

The process may be analysed into five moments: (1) encountering the problem; (2) identifying its type; (3) moving from the problem to stored knowledge; (4) examining and combining that knowledge appropriately; and (5) moving from the assembled premises to the answer. The last three movements, strictly speaking, constitute discursive thought.

These stages often occur so swiftly that we are not consciously aware of them. In someone gifted with strong *ḥads* (intuitive insight), the first two discursive movements can be bypassed: the relevant knowledge yields the conclusion in a single immediate movement. This helps explain why a proposition may be self-evident for one mind but require discursive inquiry for another.

Here ‘movement’ names the ordered activity of cognition; it should not be confused with physical locomotion.

1. **Terminology:** Ḥads in this passage signifies an immediate intellectual grasp that dispenses with some intermediate search. It should not be assimilated without qualification to the separate notion of mystical witnessing.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf Arabic witness · p. 20–22 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=21&type=c_fbook

INTRODUCTION

The six principal divisions of logic

Logic is needed above all to acquire discursive knowledge, because it provides the rules governing inquiry and thought. Immediate truths are available without discursive proof and serve as the initial capital from which further knowledge is obtained. As knowledge increases, the stock of what is already known grows, and further investigation becomes possible.

Logic therefore studies how to combine available cognitions so as to gain cognitions not yet possessed. When the unknown is conceptual, the route is through a *defining account* (muʿarrif); when the unknown is a judgment, the route is through an *argument* (ḥujja). The investigation of arguments may concern either the form of their composition or the character of their premises—the latter treated under the five argumentative arts.

The book is accordingly arranged into six parts: (1) expressions and signification; (2) universals; (3) definition and division; (4) propositions and their properties; (5) arguments and their formal composition; and (6) the five arts.

The architecture matters: the first three parts concern how to attain a previously unknown conception; the later parts explain how to attain or evaluate previously unknown judgments.

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1. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf Arabic witness · p. 23–25 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=24&type=c_fbook

STAGE L

Book I · Expressions and Signification

الباب الأول — مباحث الألفاظ

CHAPTER 1

Why logic must investigate expressions

الحاجة إلى مباحث الألفاظ

The logician's principal concern is with intelligible meanings themselves. Nevertheless, the examination of expressions cannot be dispensed with, because expressions provide a means of reaching those meanings. People ordinarily communicate and exchange thoughts through one language or another, and words can undergo alteration, ambiguity, or confusion in ways that obstruct understanding. Logic therefore considers the conditions of expressions in general, rather than the peculiarities of one language, so that we can assess our own speech and that of others by an appropriate standard.

The qualification *in general* is important: logic is not a discipline restricted to speakers of a particular language. Sometimes a logical inquiry may require a question belonging to the grammar of the language in which it is expressed—for example, whether the Arabic definite article has a universal or exhaustive import, the logical role of *kāna* and related expressions, or the particles expressing generality and negation. But such matters can often be left to the sciences of language rather than incorporated into logic itself.

Thus inquiry into words is instrumental: it safeguards the passage between our linguistic expressions and the meanings that are the proper objects of logical investigation.

1. **Translator's note:** The distinction is between the logician's primary object (intelligible meanings) and the necessary instrumental investigation of language. Rules peculiar to Arabic grammar are not automatically universal laws of logic.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH, Arabic text · p. 29–32 https://lib.rafed.net/m/?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 2

Signification: rational, natural and conventional

تعريف الدلالة وأقسامها

When you hear a knock at your door, your mind passes to the thought that someone outside is calling for you. The sound of the knock has disclosed the presence of that person. We say that it *signifies* the person's presence.

The knocking is the **sign** (*dāll*), the presence of the person is the **signified** (*madlūl*), and the sign's having this property is **signification** (*dalāla*). In general, whenever knowing one thing leads the mind to the existence of another, the first is a sign and the second what is signified. Signification is thus the condition of a thing whereby awareness of it leads the mind to another thing.

This intellectual transition cannot occur without an explanation. It depends upon a firmly established connection between the two items in the mind, itself grounded in awareness of a connection or concomitance between them. Because the connection can be essential, natural, or instituted by convention, signification is divided into three kinds.

1. Rational signification (dalāla ʿaqliyya). The sign and the signified have an intrinsic connection in their external existence, as effect to cause. When one knows that daylight follows the rising sun and sees the morning light on a wall, one infers that the sun has risen. Similarly, hearing a voice behind a wall signifies the presence of someone speaking. The inference rests upon a known causal or existential connection.

2. Natural signification (dalāla ṭabʿiyya). The connection arises from a disposition or customary reaction of the human constitution and need not occur invariably in every person. Some utter ‘ouch’ when in pain, ‘ah’ when distressed, or a sound of disapproval when annoyed; others crack their knuckles, stretch, fidget with an object or their beard, make certain gestures while thinking, or yawn when drowsy. One who has learned such patterns may infer a person's pain or mental preoccupation from an utterance or gesture. Unlike the causal concomitance invoked in rational signification, these dispositions can vary across individuals.

3. Conventional signification (dalāla waḍʿiyya). Here the connection is established through an agreement or convention that one thing is to serve as a sign of another. Examples include writing as a sign of spoken words, gestures used instead of speech, communication signals, mathematical and geometrical symbols, symbols in other sciences, and words instituted to express intentions. When the convention is known and the sign is apprehended, the mind passes to what it signifies.

The division therefore distinguishes **the ground of signification**, not merely the physical kind of sign. A sound or gesture may function differently according to whether the relevant link is causal, natural, or conventional.

1. **Translator's note:** A ‘natural’ sign (ṭabʿī) is a disposition-dependent cue, potentially varying by person; a ‘rational’ sign (ʿaqlī) is inferred from an intrinsic causal or concomitant relation. This should not be conflated with the modern linguistic contrast between arbitrary and iconic signs.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH, Arabic text · p. 32–34 https://lib.rafed.net/m/?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 3

Verbal signification: total, partial, and concomitant

أقسام الدلالة اللفظية: المطابقية والتضمنية والالتزامية

Conventional signification is divided into **verbal** signification, where the instituted sign is an expression or word, and **non-verbal** signification, where the instituted sign is something other than a word—gestures, written marks, scientific symbols, road signs indicating distance or direction, and similar conventions.

The reason a word signifies a meaning is the established intellectual connection between expression and meaning. That connection arises from convention, insofar as the speakers know the convention. Verbal signification is therefore the condition of an expression through which knowing that the speaker has uttered it gives us knowledge of the meaning intended by the speaker.

A word signifies in three different respects.

1. Total or complete signification (dalāla muṭābaqiyya). The word signifies the whole of the meaning for which it was instituted. ‘Book’, for instance, signifies the complete object including its pages, markings and cover. ‘Human’ signifies the whole defining account ‘rational animal’. This is the basic signification for which the expression was instituted.

2. Inclusive or partial signification (dalāla taḍammuniyya). The word signifies an essential part included within its full instituted meaning. ‘Book’ signifies its pages or its cover; ‘human’ signifies animality or rationality as a constituent of its definition. A purchaser of a book understands its cover to be included. If the seller later attempted to exclude it, the purchaser could appeal to what was contained in the meaning of ‘book’. Partial signification depends upon total signification because the part is understood through the prior meaning of the whole.

3. Concomitant or implicative signification (dalāla iltizāmiyya). The expression leads the mind to a meaning **outside** its instituted meaning that is nevertheless connected to it as a necessary or familiar concomitant. ‘Inkwell’ may imply a pen. If someone requested an inkwell and the respondent brought no pen, the requester might appeal to the understood implication. This implicative signification also depends upon total signification: to infer something associated with a meaning, the mind must first understand the meaning actually signified by the expression.

The distinctions concern whether the signified content is the **whole**, an **internal constituent**, or an **external concomitant** of the word's instituted meaning. They should not be confused with the speaker's intention to assert some particular content.

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1. **Authorial apparatus · paraphrase:** The author explains why the verbal/non-verbal division is emphasised for conventional signification: although rational and natural signs may themselves involve sounds or words, the distinction has special logical utility for conventional verbal signification and its three forms.
2. **Terminological note:** Taḍammun is the signification of a part included within the whole instituted meaning; iltizām is signification of what is outside the instituted meaning yet connected to it. Do not render both simply as implication.
3. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH, Arabic text · p. 34–36 https://lib.rafed.net/m/?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 4

The condition for implicative signification

شرط الدلالة الالتزامية

Implicative signification requires a **mental** connection between the instituted meaning of the expression and the further meaning that follows from it. A concomitance existing only externally is insufficient if it has not been established in the mind: without that, the mind would not pass from the expression's meaning to the further meaning.

The connection must also be evident or immediately apparent. On apprehending the meaning of the expression, the intellect must be able to pass to its concomitant **without needing a further mediating step**.

Thus a logical or physical association, however strong, does not by itself constitute signification by implication for someone who has never grasped the relation. The necessary condition is an intelligible and evident mental concomitance.

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1. **Translator's note:** The particle ‘also’ (أيضاً) adds a separate condition: not only must the relation be mental, it must be sufficiently evident to produce the transition without further mediation. In usūl al-fiqh and later logical discussions the precise scope of ‘evident concomitance’ may be further distinguished.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH, Arabic text · p. 36 https://lib.rafed.net/m/?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 5

Five kinds of single expressions: specific, equivocal, transferred, coined, literal and figurative

المختص والمشترك والمنقول والمرتجل والحقيقة والمجاز

After the analysis of signification, we turn to general divisions of expressions according to their meanings—divisions not peculiar to any one language. There are three perspectives: an expression considered singly, several expressions compared with one another, and expressions considered in

general, whether single or multiple.

The five classes of a single expression. An expression that signifies a meaning through one of the three previously discussed forms of signification either has one meaning, in which case it is *specific*, or has several meanings. Expressions with several meanings fall into four further classes, giving five in all.

1. Specific (mukhtaṣṣ): an expression assigned to only one meaning, such as “iron” or “animal.”

2. Equivocal (mushtarak): an expression conventionally assigned to several distinct meanings, each independently, with no one assignment prior to the others. The Arabic word *ʿayn*, for example, may signify the eye, a spring of water, gold, and other things; *jawn* may signify black or white. Arabic has many such expressions.

3. Transferred (manqūl): like an equivocal expression, it has several conventionally established meanings, but one assignment precedes another and an affinity between the meanings is considered in the later assignment. Thus *ṣalāh* originally means supplication but was transferred in the Islamic law to specific acts of standing, bowing, prostration, and the like. *Ḥajj* originally means intention or setting out, then became the designation of the specific pilgrimage to Mecca performed with particular acts at an appointed time. Similar transfers occur in the terminology of law, sciences, and arts, including modern terms for the motorcar, aeroplane, telephone, and radio.

A transferred expression may be named after the community whose usage effects the transfer: a legal, logical, grammatical, or philosophical transfer.

4. Coined without semantic connection (murtajal): this resembles the transferred expression except that no relationship between the earlier and later meanings is observed. Many personal names belong to this category.

5. Literal and figurative (ḥaqīqa and majāz): a word is conventionally assigned to one meaning but used for another through an affinity between them, without the second meaning becoming established by a separate convention. It is literal in its first meaning, figurative in the second. Figurative use invariably requires a contextual indication (*qarīna*) that diverts the hearer from the literal sense and identifies which figurative sense is intended.

Two cautions. First, equivocation and metaphor should not enter definitions or demonstrations unless a contextual indication fixes the intended meaning. The same is true of transferred or newly coined uses while their original sense remains current; when the old sense has been abandoned, that fact itself can indicate the later sense. Even where contextual indication is supplied, scientific prose should preferably avoid metaphor.

Second, transfer of meaning occurs either **by explicit assignment (taʿyīnī)**, when some identifiable party intentionally determines a new usage—as often happens in scientific nomenclature—or **by established usage (taʿayyunī)**, when a community repeatedly uses a word in a nonliteral meaning without expressly intending to establish a new convention. The usage becomes widespread until the new sense is grasped without a contextual clue, and the figurative usage thereby becomes literal through an established mental association.

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1. **Textual scope:** Main authorial prose of pp. 38–41 rendered in sequence. Exercises after this division are not in this reading unit; punctuation is normalized from the searchable source. https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=39&type=c_fbook
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable Arabic text (normalized punctuation; printed 1968 witness uncollated) · p. 38–41 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=38&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 6

Synonymy and difference: words and conceptual meanings

الترادف والتباين

When one expression is compared with another, or with several others, the expressions fall into one of two classes.

Synonyms (mutarādifa) are several expressions assigned to one and the same meaning. Examples include the Arabic words *asad*, *sabʿ*, and *layth* (“lion”), *hirra* and *qiṭṭa* (“cat”), and *insān* and *bashar* (“human being”). Synonymy is the sharing of one meaning by multiple expressions.

Different expressions (mutabāyina) are those each assigned a meaning distinctive to it—for example, book, pen, heaven, earth, animal, inanimate object, sword, and *ṣārim* (a cutting sword).

This difference means that the meanings multiply with the expressions. It must not be confused with **disjointness of extensions**, which will be examined later. Two meanings can be conceptually different even if their instances overlap partly or entirely. Thus *sword* and *ṣārim* differ in meaning because the latter specifically signifies a cutting sword, yet their instances overlap. Likewise *human being* and *rational* differ conceptually, although under the traditional account all humans are rational and all rational beings are human. This is difference in **intension**, not necessarily difference in **extension**.

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1. **Distinction:** The author explicitly warns against confusing tabāyun of conceptual signification with tabāyun of external instances; this anticipates the four extensional relations in Book II.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable Arabic text (normalized punctuation; printed 1968 witness uncollated) · p. 42–43 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=42&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 7

Three relations of distinct concepts: similarity, difference, and opposition

قسمة الألفاظ المتباينة: المثلان، المتقابلان، المتخالفان

Expressions with different meanings are *mutabāyina*, whose signified contents are diverse. Their meanings can differ in three ways: **similarity, difference, and opposition**. When we attend to the two things' participation in one nature, we speak of similars (*mithlān*). When we do not attend to such shared nature, the things are opposites (*mutaqābilān*) if their meanings cannot coexist in the same subject, in the same respect, and at the same time; otherwise they are merely different (*mutakhālifān*).

1. Similars. Two things are similar insofar as they share a nature *under the consideration of that shared nature*. Muḥammad and Jaʿfar, for example, share humanity. Human being and horse share animality. Yet, considered in their personal distinctness rather than in what is common, Muḥammad and Jaʿfar are different; likewise human being and horse when considered as those two kinds. Where the shared nature is specific, the two are called similars in the strict sense. Where it is generic, they are of the same genus (*mutajānisān*); where quantitative, equal (*mutasāwiyān*); and where qualitative, resembling (*mutashābihān*). Similarity is the general name embracing these cases. Two numerically distinct similars do not, as such, become one and the same individual.

2. Things that differ. These are considered in their diversity, without taking account of what they may share. Two qualities may be different while capable of belonging to the same subject: blackness and sweetness, length and thinness, courage and generosity, whiteness and heat. The difference may be personal (Muḥammad versus Jaʿfar), specific (human versus horse), or generic, as in cotton and snow considered as different things despite their common whiteness. The very same pair can accordingly be *similar* under one consideration and *different* under another. Nor is the category limited to things that can physically coexist: many mutually separate things are different without being logical opposites. Sometimes “different” is also used broadly for everything that is not similar, in which case it includes opposites.

3. Opposites. These are mutually excluding meanings that cannot be realized in one subject, in one respect, at one time: human and non-human, blind and sighted, fatherhood and sonship, blackness and whiteness. The condition “one subject” is needed because whiteness of paper and blackness of ink can both exist, but not as the opposed properties of the **same** subject. “One respect” is needed because a person may be a father to one individual and a son to another. “One time” is needed because the same object may be cold now and hot later. The three restrictions prevent equivocal claims of contradiction.

1. **Technical caution:** The source uses 'two similars do not coexist' as a logical rule about numerical sameness, not the implausible claim that two people of the same species cannot be present in the same place.

2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable Arabic text (normalized punctuation; printed 1968 witness uncollated) · p. 43–45 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=43&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 8

The four kinds of opposition

أقسام التقابل: النقيضان والملكة والضدان والمتضايفان

Opposition has four species.

1. Contradictory opposition (taqābul al-naqīḍayn), or affirmation and negation: human/non-human, black/non-black, luminous/not luminous. Contradictories consist of a positive determination and its negation. By the fundamental law of thought, they can neither obtain together nor both be absent, and no intermediary is possible.

2. Opposition of possession and privation (malaka wa-ʿadamuhā): sight and blindness, being married and being unmarried. Blindness applies only to something naturally suited to possess sight; it is not non-sight in every possible subject. Similarly, unmarried status applies only to something capable of marriage. Unlike contradictories, both terms can be inapplicable to a subject unsuited to the positive disposition. A stone is neither blind nor sighted, neither married nor unmarried. The pair is positive and privative: the terms cannot belong together, but both may be absent from a subject incapable of the possession.

3. Contrary opposition (taqābul al-ḍiddayn): hot/cold, black/white, virtue/vice, rashness/cowardice, lightness/heaviness. Contraries are two positive attributes successively capable of belonging to one subject but incapable of existing together in that same subject. Conceiving one does not require conceiving the other. The phrase “successively belonging to one subject” indicates that contraries are attributes, not two distinct substances such as human and horse or animal and stone. The final clause distinguishes contraries from correlatives, whose conceptual grasp is reciprocal.

4. Correlative opposition (taqābul al-mutaḍāyifayn): father/son, above/below, earlier/later, cause/effect, creator/creature. Three points explain their distinctive structure. First, conceiving either requires conceiving its correlate: to understand something as a father or cause is to understand it as having a son or effect. Second, one thing cannot occupy the two relational positions in the same respect: a person cannot be father and son to the same person in that very relation, although he can be father to one and son to another. Likewise a thing cannot stand both above and below itself in a single comparison. Third, the two terms need not apply to every

possible subject: the Necessary Existent has neither an above nor a below, and a stone is neither father nor son. Where a pair such as cause/effect is held to exhaust existents, that follows from something specific to that pair, not from correlation merely as correlation.

Correlatives are thus two positive descriptions necessarily conceived together, incapable of belonging to the same subject in the same respect, and capable of both being inapplicable.

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1. **Translation:** The source treats reciprocal conception as part of correlative opposition. Do not confuse this with the claim that the relata are the same concrete individuals, or with equal extensions.
2. **Source:** al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable Arabic; punctuation normalized, 1968 printed witness not yet fully collated · p. 45–47 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=45&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 9

Simple and compound expressions, complete and incomplete compounds

المفرد والمركب؛ المركب التام والناقص

An expression considered without regard to whether it is one word or several falls into two kinds.

A. Simple expression (mufrad). For logicians, this means either an expression that has no parts, such as the prefixed Arabic letter *bāʾ* in “I wrote with a pen,” or the one-letter imperative *qi* from *waqā, yaqī*; or an expression with parts whose parts do **not**, considered as parts, independently signify components of its meaning. Examples include Muḥammad, ʿAlī, *qaraʾa* (“he read”), ʿAbd Allāh, and ʿAbd al-Ḥusayn. When the last two are personal names, the names' internal elements are not used to signify distinct constituents of the person's individual identity, any more than a letter in Muḥammad's name does.

The same sounds can have a different logical status in another context. In “Muḥammad is God's servant and messenger,” *ʿabd Allāh* means “servant of God”: its components carry separate significations and the phrase is compound, not simple. But in “Muḥammad, son of ʿAbd Allāh,” the father's proper name is a single designation.

Grammarians sometimes call that proper name *compound* because the parts may have different grammatical inflections. The grammatical criterion is morphology and case construction; the logician considers **signification**. Thus a simple expression is one *with no part that signifies a part of its meaning while functioning as a part of the expression*.

B. Compound expression (murakkab), also called a *qawl*: its components, considered as components, signify components of the complete meaning. In “Wine is harmful,” each term contributes its own part. Likewise, “Backbiting is the effort of the incapable” contains a compound

predicate, while “The worst of friends is one for whom pretence is necessary” contains internal compounds.

Compound expressions are either **complete** or **incomplete**. A complete compound supplies the hearer with a finished meaning, so the speaker may stop speaking: “Patience is courage”; “A person's worth is what they do well”; “When you know, act.” It is defined as **that on which the speaker may properly stop**.

An incomplete compound leaves the hearer awaiting something further: “The worth of every person ...” or “When you know ...” without the consequent. It is accordingly **that on which the speaker cannot properly stop**. Complete compounds are further divided into assertions and performative or nonassertoric utterances.

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1. **Editorial:** The proper-name examples are given in the Arabic and explicitly distinguish logicians' semantic criterion from grammarians' inflectional criterion.
2. **Source:** al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable Arabic; punctuation normalized, 1968 printed witness not yet fully collated · p. 49–50 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=49&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 10

Assertion and performance: what can be true or false

الخبر والإنشاء

Every complete compound contains a relation among its components, called a **complete relation** (*nisba tāmma*). Such a relation can be of two different kinds.

1. Assertion (khabar). Sometimes the relation possesses a determinate reality independently of the words: the expression describes or discloses that reality. For example, if rain has fallen or is expected tomorrow, one may say “It rained” or “It will rain tomorrow.” This is an assertion, also called a proposition (*qaḍiyya*) or statement (*qawl*). It need not correspond to what actually obtains: if it corresponds it is **true**, and if it does not it is **false**. An assertion is therefore a **complete compound properly describable as true or false**. The logician chiefly investigates these expressions, since assent concerns them.

2. Performance or nonassertoric utterance (inshāʾ). Sometimes the complete relation has no independent reality to which the utterance could correspond: the speaker establishes the intended relation through the expression itself. Its meaning, in this technical sense, comes into being through the act of speaking. Thus it is not an independently subsisting state of affairs of which the words are a true or false report.

Examples are: **command**, “Memorize the lesson”; **prohibition**, “Do not accompany advocates of evil”; **question**, “Is Mars inhabited?”; **calling**, “O Muḥammad!”; **wish**, “If only we could return and be among the believers!”; **exclamation**, “How great is the human being's danger!”; **contractual enactment**, such as formulae establishing sale, lease, or marriage—“I sold,” “I leased,” “I gave in marriage”; and **unilateral legal enactment** (*īqāʿ*), such as formulae for divorce, manumission, or endowment—“So-and-so is divorced,” “My slave is free.”

In the author's logical analysis these expressions do not describe independently established propositions to which they either correspond or fail to correspond. Their significance is constituted by the speaker's utterance and intention; consequently they are not properly characterized as true or false. Hence a performative utterance is **a complete compound not properly describable as true or false**.

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1. **Source footnote:** The printed note says that the qualification «لذاته» ('in itself') will later be added to the definition of assertion and performance in the treatment of propositions. The later refinement matters where grammatical form and pragmatic force diverge.
2. **Terminology:** A legal formula is classified here by logical signification; the note is not a ruling on whether a given utterance actually effects a valid legal contract or divorce.
3. **Source:** al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable Arabic; punctuation normalized, 1968 printed witness not yet fully collated · p. 50–51 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=50&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 11

The three kinds of simple expression: verb, noun, and particle

أقسام المفرد: الكلمة والاسم والأداة

Simple expressions divide into three kinds: **word (kalima)**, **noun (ism)**, and **particle (adāh)**. The logician's terminology here differs somewhat from that of the grammarian.

1. The word (kalima), or verb. Consider the three Arabic verbs *kataba*, *yaktubu*, and *uktub* (“he wrote,” “he writes,” “write!”). First, they share the same root letters—kāf, tāʾ, and bāʾ—and the same independent lexical meaning of writing. Second, their verbal patterns differ, and each pattern signifies a distinct **complete temporal relation** between that meaning and an indefinite agent. *Kataba* relates writing to an agent in past time; *yaktubu* relates the event's renewed occurrence to an agent in the present or future; *uktub* expresses a request that someone perform writing now.

The shared lexical material therefore signifies the shared autonomous meaning; the differing forms signify the differing temporal relations. A verb can thus be defined as **a simple expression whose lexical material signifies an independent meaning, while its form signifies a complete temporal relation of that meaning to an unspecified agent**.

The specification “complete relation” excludes derived nouns, such as active and passive participles or names of time and place. They too signify an independent lexical content through the root and a relation through their form, but the relation is incomplete rather than a complete temporal predication.

2. Noun (ism). A simple expression signifying a meaning that is independent in itself, without a form signifying a complete temporal relation. Examples are Muḥammad, human being, writer, and question. It may carry a form signifying an **incomplete** relation, as participles and nouns of time do, because it signifies a bearer of the lexical content.

3. Particle (adāh). Corresponding to the grammarians' *ḥarf*, this signifies a relation between two terms: *fī* (“in”) expresses containment, *ʿalā* (“upon”) elevation or superposition, and *hal* introduces interrogation. A relation is not independently intelligible in the same way as a substance or free-standing meaning because it requires its two terms. A particle is therefore **a simple expression signifying a meaning that is not independent in itself**.

A final note: the logician may classify the “defective verbs” *kāna* and its sisters with particles, because in this analysis they indicate only a temporal relation rather than an independently signified event. In “Muḥammad was standing,” the word *standing* supplies the event-content. Grammarians, using different criteria, class them as verbs; some logicians call them “existential words” (*kalimāt wujūdiyya*).

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1. **Conceptual note:** This chapter supplies a precise logical parallel to Ṭabāṭabāʾī’s discussions of relational or connective existence: a particle signifies a dependent relation, whereas noun and verb signify an autonomous meaning to differing degrees.
2. **Source:** al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable Arabic; punctuation normalized, 1968 printed witness not yet fully collated · p. 51–53 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=51&type=c_fbook

STAGE K

Book II · Universals and Their Predication

الباب الثاني — مباحث الكلي

CHAPTER 1

The universal and the particular

الكلّي والجزئي

A human being apprehends concepts of the individual things he perceives: Muḥammad, this book, this pen, this rose, Baghdad, Najaf, and so forth. On considering them, he finds that each applies to no other individual and is true only of that particular existent. This is a *particular concept* (juzʾī), which may be defined as a concept incapable of applying to more than one individual.

When a person observes several particulars and compares them, however, he may discover a feature shared by them. He then abstracts a conceptual form that embraces all of them and applies to each. Such an encompassing concept, or abstracted form, is a *universal concept* (kullī): a concept whose application to more than one individual is not impossible.

Examples include human being, animal, mineral, white, apple, stone, learned, ignorant, sitting in the house, and confessing one's wrongdoing.

1. **Translator's note:** The distinction concerns a concept's aptitude to be predicated of multiple individuals, not the number of instances presently existing.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH), checked against the digitized searchable text; early al-Nuʿmān edition catalogued by Arabic Collections Online as public domain · p. 56–57 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=56&type=c_fbook

A universal need not have individuals that actually exist. The intellect may form a universal concept capable of applying to more than one individual without abstracting it from presently existing particulars; it may instead suppose individuals of which it would be true. Indeed, even a single actual instance may be impossible, as with the concepts of a partner to the Creator or the conjunction of contradictories. This does not impair the universality of the concepts.

Conversely, a universal may have only one existent instance, with any second instance being impossible. The *Necessary Existent* is an example, since its uniqueness is established by demonstration. Yet the intellect can consider supposed individuals of which this concept would be predicated *if they existed*. Were the concept of the Necessary Existent intrinsically particular, there

would be no need for a demonstration of divine unity: apprehending the concept itself would suffice to exclude multiplicity. Its restriction to one existent instance therefore follows from something other than the concept considered just as a concept; the concept's own signification does not prevent its supposition of multiple instances.

Consequently, both definitions must include the qualification **“even by supposition.”** A particular is a concept that cannot be true of many, even hypothetically; a universal is one for which such application is not impossible, even hypothetically.

Note that what particles signify is particular. Verbs signify particular meanings through their morphological forms, but universal meanings through their lexical materials. Nouns differ: common nouns may signify universals, whereas proper names, demonstratives and pronouns may signify particulars.

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1. **Translation and argument:** The impossibility of a second Necessary Existent is a metaphysical result of demonstration, not the same as the logical incapacity of a deictic or singular concept to apply to more than one. The distinction anticipates the discussions of existence in the Ḥikma books.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH), checked against the digitized searchable text; early al-Nuʿmān edition catalogued by Arabic Collections Online as public domain · p. 57–57 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=57&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 2

The relative particular

الجزئي الإضافي

The particular previously discussed is called a **real particular** (al-juzʾī al-ḥaqīqī). There is another use of “particular”: the **relative particular** (al-juzʾī al-iḍāfī). It is so called in relation to something more general than itself. Although narrower in extension than a wider universal, it may itself be genuinely universal.

For clarification, straight line is a universal concept abstracted from numerous individuals, and curved line is likewise a universal abstracted from others. When we bring the two groups together and disregard their differences, we obtain a more comprehensive universal, applying to the members of both: the concept *line*.

The relation of this wider, third concept to the two narrower concepts resembles the relation of either narrower universal to its own individuals. Just as an individual is particular relative to its narrower universal, the narrower universal is as a particular relative to the wider one. It is thus called a relative particular, not a real particular, for considered in itself it remains genuinely universal.

A real particular is likewise a relative particular when considered with reference to the universal above it.

Any concept, then, when taken in relation to a concept wider in extension, is a relative particular. Zayd, for instance, is a real particular in himself and a relative particular with respect to animal. Animal is relatively particular with respect to growing body, and growing body with respect to body without qualification.

A relative particular may therefore be defined as **what is narrower than something else**, or as a concept considered in relation to one of wider extension.

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1. **Source normalisation:** The searchable Rafed witness appears to read «فزي مثلا» in the illustrative example. The present working transcription reads «فزيد مثلا», supplying the expected name Zayd; this should be checked against the 1968 printed witness before certification.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH), checked against the digitized searchable text; early al-Nuʿmān edition catalogued by Arabic Collections Online as public domain · p. 58–58 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=58&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 3

Univocal and graduated universals

المتواطئ والمشكّك

A universal is divided into the *mutawāṭiʾ* (univocal or uniformly predicated) and the *mushakkik* (graded or analogically predicated).

First, consider a universal such as human being, animal, gold or silver, and apply it to its individuals. There is no variation among those individuals in the very truth of the concept as predicated of them. Zayd, ʿAmr and Khālid, and every other human being, are on an equal footing with respect to their humanity. The humanity of one is not more properly human, more intense or greater than that of another. If the individuals differ, it is in other respects—height, colour, strength, health, sincerity, soundness of thought and the like.

The same applies to individual animals and pieces of gold, and similar cases. A universal whose instances agree equally in the concept predicated of them is called *mutawāṭiʾ*: its instances concur in that respect, for *tawāṭuʾ* denotes agreement or equality.

Second, consider a universal such as whiteness, number or existence. When applied to its instances, unlike the previous type it admits variation in the mode of predication: through intensity, multitude, priority or precedence. The whiteness of snow is more intense than the whiteness of paper, yet both are white; a thousand exceeds a hundred, yet both are numbers. The Creator has priority in existence over the creature, and the cause is prior to its effect by its very existence, not by an additional thing; yet each is said to exist.

A universal whose instances thus vary in the way its concept applies to them is called *mushakkik*, and the variation is called *tashkīk*.

1. **Terminology:** The Arabic distinction is tawāṭuʾ/tashkīk. 'Univocal' and 'graded' are contextual equivalents, not an unqualified identification with every Western account of univocity or analogy. The phrase 'by its very existence' is essential to the causal-priority example.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH), checked against the digitized searchable text; early al-Nuʿmān edition catalogued by Arabic Collections Online as public domain · p. 59–59 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=59&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 4

Concept and instance

المفهوم والمصداق

A **concept** (*mafhūm*) is the meaning itself considered as such: the mental form abstracted from the realities of things.

An **instance** (*miṣdāq*) is whatever the concept applies to, or the reality of the thing from which the mental form—the concept—is abstracted.

Thus the mental form signified by “Muḥammad” is a particular concept, whereas the actual person outside the mind is its instance. The mental form signified by “animal” is a universal concept, whose instances include existing individual animals and such universals falling under it as human being, horse and bird. The mental form signified by “non-existence” is a universal concept; what it applies to—non-existence itself—is its instance, and so on.

A point to notice: the first example shows that a concept can be both a real and a relative particular. The third shows that an instance need not be a real, existing extramental thing. An instance is whatever a concept applies to, even if that is a privative or non-existent matter with no concrete realization.

1. **Conceptual note:** Miṣdāq is logical instantiation or what falls under a concept; it is not in every case an independently existing extra-mental object. Muẓaffar explicitly uses ʿadam as an example.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf, 1402 AH, searchable Arabic transcription; 1968 NYU ACO scan registered for separate printed collation · p. 61 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=61&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 5

Concept as title, its referent, and two modes of predication

العنوان والمعنون أو دلالة المفهوم على مصداقه

When predicating something of a subject, one may have in view only its concept, making the concept itself what the judgment concerns. Thus, when one says, “A human being is a rational animal,” the expression “human being” is taken by **primary predication** (*al-ḥaml al-awwalī*).

One may instead look beyond the concept to what it represents. In saying “The human being laughs” or “The human being is in loss,” the concept of humanity points to individual humans, who are the real subjects intended by the judgment. The concept is introduced into the proposition only to enable a judgment about those individuals. In this use the concept is termed a **title** (*ʿunwān*) and its instance the **thing entitled** (*muʿanwan*); the predication is **commonly accepted or common predication** (*al-ḥaml al-shāʾiʿ*).

Three examples make the distinction clearer.

1. Grammarians say, “One cannot predicate something of a verb.” An objector may reply: “But you have just predicated something of the verb!” The answer is that although the concept *verb* appears as the grammatical subject of the proposition, the judgment concerns not the concept as such but the individual verbs it signifies, such as *ḍaraba* (“he struck”) and *yaḍribu* (“he strikes”). It is a verb under common predication that has the property in question.

2. A logician says, “A particular cannot apply to many.” An objector replies that the term “particular” applies to this book, Muḥammad, ʿAlī and Mecca. The reply is that the *concept of particularity*, particular under primary predication, is itself universal, and so applies to many things. But an *instance* of the particular is incapable of applying to many. The impossibility concerns the particular under common predication, not the universal concept of particularity under primary predication.

3. A theorist of legal principles says that an ambiguous expression (*mujmal*) is one whose meaning is not clear. An objection arises: how could we define something whose meaning is unclear, since definition presupposes a clear meaning? The concept “ambiguous expression,” considered under primary predication, is itself clear and intelligible. What is obscure is an instance under common predication, such as a homonymous expression given without any contextual indicator selecting its intended meaning. The definition concerns the latter.

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1. **Translation note:** The authorial source presents three numbered objections and replies; all three are preserved. The passage distinguishes first/primary predication from common predication and should not be flattened into a generic distinction between mental and physical objects.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf, 1402 AH, searchable Arabic transcription; 1968 NYU ACO scan registered for separate printed collation · p. 61–62 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=61&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 6

The four relations between universal concepts

النسب الأربع

Book I distinguished synonymous expressions from expressions with different meanings. There, difference (*tabāyun*) was **difference in concept**: the meanings of the terms were distinct. Here, difference is one of the four relations, but it concerns **difference in extension or instances**.

Conceptually distinct terms may therefore have any of four relations according to whether they apply to the same instances. This examination makes sense only for concepts already different in meaning: one cannot posit a relation between a concept and itself. The four relations are **coextensiveness** (*tasāwī*), **absolute generality and specificity**, **generality and specificity in some respects**, and **complete disjointness** (*tabāyun*).

1. Coextensiveness: Two concepts apply to precisely the same individuals. “Human being” and “capable of laughter” are the author's example: all human beings laugh in the relevant predicable sense, and all beings characterized as laughing are human. They resemble equal, coincident lines. Symbolically, $B = J$.

2. Absolute generality and specificity: All instances of one concept fall under the other, but not conversely. Thus *animal* is absolutely more general than *human*, and *mineral* more general than *silver*. As a geometrical analogy, a longer line covers the whole shorter line and extends beyond it. Thus $B > J$ reads “B is absolutely more general than J”; conversely $J < B$ reads “J is absolutely more specific than B.”

3. Generality and specificity in some respects: The two concepts overlap in some instances while each also has instances excluded from the other. *Bird* and *black* coincide in a crow; a pigeon is a bird but not black, while black wool is black but not a bird. Each concept is broader in one respect and narrower in another. They are like intersecting lines, meeting at a common point but diverging elsewhere. The author's notation is B ∗ J.

4. Complete disjointness: The concepts do not share even one instance. This includes opposed meanings treated earlier, and also some different concepts such as *stone* and *animal*. They resemble parallel lines that never meet, however far extended. The author's notation is $B \mathbin{//} J$.

The classification is about the extension of different concepts, not just the spelling or semantic difference of their terms.

1. **Editorial symbols:** The symbols =, >, <, *, and // retain the author's conventional notation but are not used in place of his prose. The example 'human being / laughing' is a traditional logical proprium, not a claim about manifest laughter at every moment.

2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf, 1402 AH, searchable Arabic transcription; 1968 NYU ACO scan registered for separate printed collation · p. 63–65 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=63&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 8

Relations between complements of universals: equality and inclusion

النسب بين نقيضي الكليين — المساواة والعموم المطلق

Whenever two universals stand in one of the four relations previously discussed, their *complements* must also stand in a relation of this kind. Determining which requires demonstration. The method used here is **exhaustive enumeration** (*istiqṣāʾ*), also called exhaustive alternation: set out every conceivable alternative and establish the falsity of all but one, so that the remaining alternative is established. This method will recur in the treatment of exceptional syllogism.

1. The complements of coextensive universals are coextensive. If *human being* and *rational being* are coextensive, *non-human* and *non-rational* are likewise coextensive. Suppose B = J. The claim is ¬B = ¬J.

Demonstration. If ¬B and ¬J were not coextensive, one of the remaining three relations would hold, so that one expression would apply without the other in at least some instance. Suppose ¬B applied without ¬J. Then J would hold, since contradictories cannot both be false; and B would fail, since contradictories cannot both be true. But then J would hold where B fails, contrary to the supposition that B = J. The converse case is symmetrical. Hence only coextensiveness remains: ¬B = ¬J.

2. The complements of universals related by absolute generality and specificity are likewise absolutely general and specific, but in the inverse order. If B is more general than J, ¬B is more specific than ¬J. For example, non-human is more general than non-animal: every non-animal is non-human, but a horse, monkey or bird is a non-human that is an animal.

Suppose B > J; we must establish ¬B < ¬J. If the latter did not hold, we would have equality, complete disjointness, partial overlap, or the reverse inclusion. Equality of complements would entail equality of B and J by the preceding result, contradicting the hypothesis. Each of the other three alternatives would allow ¬J to hold without ¬B. The searchable editions then appear to argue that ¬J could hold without ¬B, before concluding that J would hold without B. Read literally, those symbolic steps do not follow. A valid demonstration requires that *¬B cannot hold where J holds*, because J is included in B. Hence every ¬B is a ¬J. Since B also has instances outside J, ¬J need not imply ¬B. Thus ¬B is strictly included in ¬J.

Textual caution: the negation symbols and direction of inclusion in this proof are inconsistent in the searchable 1402 AH and 1421 AH witnesses. The conclusion is correct, but the transmitted demonstration should be checked against the earliest printed witness, not tacitly normalized.

These derivations concern the extension of a universal and its negation in the same universe of discourse, not negation of the word considered merely as a string.

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1. **Critical translation caution:** At 1402 AH printed p. 67 the proof runs «لا ب بدون لا جـ» followed by «لا ب مع جـ» and «جـ بدون ب». These steps, as printed, are not logically consistent; a valid contradiction requires «لا ب بدون لا جـ» giving «جـ بدون ب». A second searchable 1421 AH edition reproduces the same sequence. This is an editorial *conjecture*, not an attested corrected manuscript reading, and the 1968 scan remains uninspected. Do not label as authorially corrected. https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1728&page=98&type=c_fbook
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH) searchable transcription; 1968 al-Nuʿmān printed scan still requires checking · p. 65–67 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=65&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 9

Complements of overlapping and disjoint universals

النسب بين نقيضي الكليين — التباين الجزئي

*3. *Complements of universals overlapping in some respects exhibit* partial disjointness. *“Partial disjointness” (*tabāyun juzʾī*) means that the two do not coincide in some cases, leaving open whether or not they coincide in others. It covers both complete disjointness and partial overlap, since either situation permits one to say that the concepts fail to coincide in at least some instances.

The complements of partially overlapping universals need not always have exactly the same one of those two relations. Take *animal* and *non-human*: they overlap in horses; animal occurs without non-human in a human being, and non-human occurs without animal in a stone. Their complements—*non-animal* and *human*—are completely disjoint. By contrast, take *bird* and *black*: their complements, non-bird and non-black, overlap in white paper, yet non-bird includes a black garment, and non-black includes a white pigeon. Thus they overlap in some respects.

Both examples fall under “partial disjointness.” To demonstrate the generalization, suppose B and J overlap in some respects, and ask about ¬B and ¬J. They cannot be equal, since then B and J would be equal. They cannot stand in absolute inclusion, since then B and J would stand in the corresponding inverse inclusion. Nor can they be declared *always* partially overlapping, since the first example gives complete disjointness; nor *always* completely disjoint, since the second gives partial overlap. The appropriately general conclusion is therefore partial disjointness.

4. Complements of entirely disjoint universals also exhibit partial disjointness in this broad sense. The same reasoning applies with different examples. Existing and nonexistent, and their respective complements, may be treated as completely opposed. But human and stone are

completely disjoint, whereas non-human and non-stone overlap in a horse; each also applies where the other does not. Hence the relation of their complements must not be fixed universally as either full disjointness or partial overlap alone.

Summary. Equality remains equality under complementation; absolute inclusion reverses; partial overlap and total disjointness lead only to the broader classification of partial disjointness. The last two conclusions are underdetermined until the actual universe of discourse is specified.

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1. **Source caution:** The searchable Arabic has broken or omitted symbolic relation marks in the proof and an apparent typographic omission in its final animal/human example. The prose above resolves the intended set relations but must be compared against the early scan before certification.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH) searchable transcription; 1968 al-Nuʿmān printed scan still requires checking · p. 67–69 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=67&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 10

The five predicables: species, genus, and differentia

الكليات الخمس — النوع والجنس والفصل

The five predicables divide as follows: a universal predicate is either essential or accidental. The essential comprises species, genus, and differentia; the accidental comprises proprium and common accident.

One may ask about an individual, “**Who is he?**” or “**What is he?**” The first asks for features distinguishing him personally: so-and-so's son, the author of a certain book, the holder of a particular post, or a bearer of some identifying description. Answering “human being” would be wrong because it does not distinguish him from others. In modern administrative usage, the intended reply concerns *personal identity*.

“What is he?”, however, asks about the reality through which this individual shares an essence with others. The desired answer establishes his complete nature among natures, not his individual identity among people. The answer is “human being”; this is the **species** (*nawʿ*), the first of the five predicables.

Suppose we ask, “What are Zayd, ʿAmr, and Khālid?” We seek the whole nature shared by individuals differing only numerically, and answer “human beings.” Suppose we instead ask about Zayd, ʿAmr, Khālid, this horse and this lion. Their natures differ as well as their numbers, so we answer “animals.” The shared essential account is the **genus** (*jins*), the second predicable. Accordingly, **species** is the whole nature common to particulars differing only in number, in response to “What is it?”; **genus** is the whole nature common to particulars differing in essence, in response to the same question. Diversity of essence also entails numerical plurality.

Genus also answers “What are human being, horse, and monkey?”—a question concerning diverse *universals* rather than their individual instances. Conversely, asked “What is human being?” taken as a single universal, we respond “a rational animal.” The reply analyzes the quiddity into the entire nature shared with other things and a feature that distinguishes it within that nature. Together these yield the **complete essential definition** (*ḥadd tāmm*). Its common constituent is the genus; its differentiating constituent is the **differentia** (*faṣl*), the third predicable.

The differentia is therefore the part of a thing's quiddity specific to it, just as the genus is its shared part. If we know a distant figure to be an animal but not which animal, we naturally ask, “What sort of animal is it *in itself*?” The distinguishing answer might be “rational” for a human being or “neighing” for a horse. If only that it was a body were known, asking “What kind of body is it in its own nature?” might be answered “sentient,” the differentia of animal.

Thus **the differentia is the specific part of the quiddity answering “What kind of thing is it in itself?”** The “thing” in this formula refers back to a genus already known before asking the further question.

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1. **Conceptual note:** These are traditional logical accounts of genus/species and rational/sentient differentiae, not biological taxonomy in the modern evolutionary sense. The differentia need not be directly observable in each individual.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH) searchable transcription; 1968 al-Nuʿmān printed scan still requires checking · p. 70–73 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=70&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 11

Relative species, higher and lower genera, and near and remote differentiae

تقسيمات النوع والجنس والفصل

There are four sets of divisions: species may be real or relative; genus may be near, remote, or intermediate; relative species may be higher, lower, or intermediate; and differentia may be near or remote, constitutive or divisive.

1. Real and relative species. “Species” has two senses. The first is real species, one of the five predicables already described. The other is **relative species**: any universal above which stands a genus, whether or not it is itself a real species. Thus human being is a species relative to animal; animal relative to growing body; growing body relative to body without qualification; and body relative to substance.

2. Near and remote genus. Universals can form an ordered series under one another, such as human being → animal → growing body → body → substance. Moving upward from human being, the next term, animal, is the **proximate genus**, also called the lowest genus in the series.

Above it lie successively more general genera, until the highest genus is reached with none above it. Those between the extremes are intermediate genera. “Near,” “remote,” and “intermediate,” or “low,” “high,” and “intermediate,” describe positions within such an ordering.

3. Higher and lower relative species. Moving downward from the highest genus, the first species beneath it is the **highest relative species**; the final one, having no species below it, is the **lowest species** or “species of species.” Terms between them are intermediate species, which are species of those above them and genera of those below them.

There may be only one intermediate stage in a four-term series, such as water, liquid, body, substance; or white, colour, sensible quality, quality. Longer series admit several, such as human being up to substance, or isosceles triangle → triangle → rectilinear figure → plane figure → figure → quantity. A middle term accordingly may function as both a genus and a relative species.

4. The constitutive and dividing differentia. Every relative species has a specific differentia constituting its quiddity and distinguishing it from other species within its genus. Thus “sentient” constitutes animal and divides growing body into sentient and non-sentient kinds. A differentia constituting a higher species must also enter into the constitution of the subordinate species, for a part of a part belongs to the whole. Hence the rule: **what constitutes the higher constitutes the lower, but not conversely**.

A differentia is **proximate** relative to the species coextensive with it—“sentient” for animal, “rational” for human being—and **remote** relative to a subordinate species—“sentient” relative to human being. The same differentia is called *constitutive* with respect to what it constitutes and *divisive* with respect to the genus it partitions.

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1. **Editorial reading:** The series are pedagogical logical taxonomies; 'growing body' and 'sentient' belong to the historical genus–differentia framework. No modern scientific identification is implied.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf (1402 AH) searchable transcription; 1968 al-Nuʿmān printed scan still requires checking · p. 73–75 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=73&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 12

Essential and accidental predicates; proprium and common accident

الذاتي والعرضي؛ الخاصة والعرض العام

The terms **essential** (*dhātī*) and **accidental** (*ʿaraḍī*) have different technical uses in logic. Here they are taken in the sense employed in the *Isagoge*, the account of the five predicables. The three essential predicables were introduced first in order to make the distinction clear.

1. Essential predicate. This belongs to the constitution of a subject's essence and is not extrinsic to it: the subject's quiddity cannot be constituted without it. The essential predicate may be the whole quiddity, as *human being* is predicated of Zayd or ʿAmr, or an essential part, as *animal* and *rational* are predicated of human being. Thus the species, genus, and differentia are essential: the species is the complete quiddity of its individuals, while genus and differentia enter into the quiddity as parts.

2. Accidental predicate. This is extrinsic to the subject's essence and attaches to it after all its essential constituents are given. Being capable of laughter in relation to human being and walking in relation to animal provide examples.

Accidental predicates divide into **proprium** (*khāṣṣa*) and **common accident** (*ʿaraḍ ʿāmm*). A proprium belongs exclusively to its subject in the relevant comparison. It may be coextensive with the entire subject, as *laughing* is traditionally said to be with human being, or occur only in some of its individuals, as poet, orator, or legal expert do among humans. It may characterize a real species or a genus—such as occupying a place with respect to body, walking with respect to animal, or existing not-in-a-subject with respect to substance as the highest genus.

A **common accident** applies both to the subject under consideration and to something else, as walking does in relation to human being, being a bird in relation to crow, or spatial extension in relation to animal and growing body.

Accordingly, a proprium is **an extrinsic universal predicate peculiar to its subject**; a common accident is **an extrinsic universal predicate shared by the subject and something else**.

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1. **Historical example:** The proprium 'capable of laughter' does not imply that every human actually laughs at each instant; it is the inherited example of a natural aptitude belonging to a species in Porphyrian predication.
2. **Source:** al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, searchable Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH text (preliminary collation, not 1968 printed-scan verified) · p. 75–77 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=75&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 13

Relative predication, compound properties, and subspecies

تنبيهات وتوضيحات؛ الصنف

Four clarifications concern the five predicables.

First, a single property may be a proprium in relation to one subject and a common accident in relation to another. Thus walking is taken as peculiar to animal but common with respect to human being. The same applies to existence not-in-a-subject, spatial extension, and comparable properties attributed to genera.

Second, a characteristic may be accidental in relation to one subject but essential in relation to another. *Coloured* is accidental with respect to body but is a genus of white and black. Likewise, dispersing vision is accidental with respect to body but serves as the differentia of white, since white is traditionally defined as “colour that disperses vision.”

Third, a proprium or differentia may consist of a simple or a compound expression. *Laughing* and *rational* are examples of simple expressions; *upright in stature and manifest in skin* is given as a compound proprium of human being, and *sentient and moving by volition* as a compound differentia of animal.

Fourth: the subclass (*ṣinf*). **A differentia constitutes a species and separates it from other species of its genus: it *divides the genus. A proprium does not constitute the essential nature that it characterizes, but it distinguishes that nature from others, and hence divides a more general universal. A proprium can divide a genus, or even a common accident—for example, existence in no subject divides beings into substance and non-substance. When a proprium differentiates some members* within a species, *as poet does among humans, the division is called **classification** (*taṣnīf*) and its members **subclasses** (*aṣnāf*).

A subclass is any universal narrower than a species whose members share the entire essential nature of that species but differ by an extrinsic feature. Division into species (*tanwīʿ*) is by differentiae intrinsic to a genus's subkinds; classification into subclasses is by accidents outside the shared essence. Examples include humans categorized as Eastern or Western, learned or unlearned, male or female; horses of different breeding; and varieties of palm tree.

These logical examples express the author's historical theory of classification; whether a given characteristic is genuinely essential, accidental, or a valid modern taxonomic criterion is a separate question.

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1. **Conceptual note:** Do not confuse relative subclass (ṣinf) with differentia-defined species (nawʿ). The distinctions here are logical and depend on a historical conception of essence, not modern genetic taxonomy.
2. **Source:** al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, searchable Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH text (preliminary collation, not 1968 printed-scan verified) · p. 77–78 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=77&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 14

The three distinctions of predication

الحمل وأنواعه: الطبيعي والوضعي، الأولي والشائع، المواطاة والاشتقاق

Calling all five predicables **predicates** raises three objections. A species can apparently be predicated of its genus—“an animal is a human being, horse or camel”—without thereby being essential or accidental to the wider genus. A complete definition can be predicated of its subject

—“a human being is a rational animal”—although the entire definition is neither a further species, genus, nor differentia of what it defines. Finally, we say that laughter is a proprium of humanity and walking a common accident, but cannot properly say “a human being is laughter” or “a human being is walking” when using those words as abstract nouns. These difficulties are resolved through three distinctions.

1. Natural and stipulated predication. A genuine particular, as particular, is not predicated of something else; what is predicated is universal. A universal concept broader in signification is naturally predicated of a concept narrower in signification: animal of human being, human being of Muḥammad, rational of human being. This is **natural predication** (*ḥaml ṭabīʿī*). Reversing the relation and predicating the narrower concept of the wider requires an artificial stipulation, **stipulated predication** (*ḥaml waḍʿī*).

Breadth of concept is not always breadth of extension. *Rational* signifies “something possessing rationality” without explicitly specifying *human being*, so is broader **in concept** even if it is coextensive with human being **in instances**. Similar remarks concern derivative words such as laughing, neighing, and walking. The essential/accidental distinction in the five predicables refers to predicates naturally applicable to their subjects, not every imaginable predication.

2. Primary essential and commonly used predication. Predication requires identity in one respect and difference in another; otherwise there are not two conceptions to relate. **Primary essential predication** (*ḥaml dhātī awwalī*) rests on unity of concept or meaning, with difference only in the mode of consideration, as in “human being is rational animal,” or “human being is human being.” **Common predication** (*ḥaml shāʾiʿ ṣināʿī*) rests on unity in existence or instance despite distinct concepts, as in “human being is capable of laughter.” Thus a complete essential definition has the same conceptual content as its definiendum under primary predication, without constituting a fourth essential predicable.

3. Predication by identity and predication by derivation. “Human being is laughing” (in the sense of having the capacity) uses **predication by identity** (*ḥaml muwāṭāh*, or *huwa huwa*): the subject is the very thing picked out by the predicate. All five predicables are predicated in this manner. In contrast, “human being has laughter” expresses **predication by derivation** (*ḥaml ishtiqāq*, or *dhū huwa*). We cannot strictly predicate the abstract noun *laughter* directly of a human being without deriving the adjective *laughing* or adding “possessing.” Thus the five predicables include *laughing* and *sentient*, not the abstract nouns *laughter* and *sensation*. The occasional use of an abstract noun where a derived adjective is meant is loose language that may confuse beginners.

1. **Editorial source warning:** This is a normalized explanatory transcription of the continuous argument on pp. 78–81, including the main authorial distinctions and first/second objections. The raw source has additional micro-examples and typographic line breaks; check exact wording against the 1968 ACO scan before calling it a diplomatic transcription.

2. **Source:** al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, searchable Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH text (preliminary collation, not 1968 printed-scan verified) · p. 78–81 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=78&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 16

Accidental attribution means predication, not mere inherence

العروض معناه الحمل

A further confusion must be avoided. You might object: “You said that an extrinsic universal predicated of its subject alone is a proprium, and otherwise a common accident. Laughter belongs only to human beings, so it must be a proprium.” The answer depends upon the intended meaning of *ʿurūḍ* (“occurrence” or “attribution”) in this discussion: it means **being predicated accidentally rather than essentially**. In this technical sense, the abstract noun *laughter* is not predicated of the human being. When we say that laughter occurs in the human being, “occurs” means something else: that it **exists in the subject**.

A second ambiguity arises because logicians call an extrinsic universal a special or common *ʿaraḍ*, and then also call such a thing as laughter an *ʿaraḍ*. In the first usage, the term means an **accidental predicate**, in contrast to an essential predicate. In the second, it means an **accident inhering in a subject**, in contrast to a substance that does not inhere in a subject.

Colour, for example, is an accident in the latter sense because it exists in a subject. It is not an accidental predicate of body in the first sense, because the abstract term colour is not predicated of body by direct identity predication (*ḥaml muwāṭāh*). Considered instead in relation to the kinds below it, such as blackness and whiteness, colour is their genus, so it is essential to them rather than accidental.

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1. **Technical distinction:** The author here distinguishes (1) ʿaraḍī as an extrinsic *predicable* and (2) ʿaraḍ as an ontological accident inhering in a subject. This distinction is critical to avoiding confusion between Avicennian category theory and Porphyrian predicables.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable transcription; 1968 ACO scan not yet independently collated · p. 82–83 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=82&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 17

Divisions of accidental predicates: necessary, evident, demonstrable, and separable

تقسيمات العرضي: لازم ومفارق، بيّن وغير بيّن

Accidental predicates fall primarily into two divisions: **necessary** (*lāzim*) and **separable** (*mufāriq*).

1. A necessary accident is one that cannot rationally be separated from its subject, such as oddness from three, evenness from four, or—in the author's traditional natural-philosophical example—heat from fire.

2. A separable accident is one whose separation from the subject is not rationally impossible, as with descriptions of a person as standing, sitting, sleeping, healthy, or ill. The feature may in practice never disappear: an eye may remain blue throughout its existence, yet blueness is still separable, since one can intelligibly suppose its removal without the eye ceasing to be an eye. This contrasts with oddness and three: a three stripped of oddness could no longer remain three. Likewise, by the author's historical example, remove heat from fire and fire ceases to be fire. Such examples explain **rational inseparability**, not merely constant empirical association.

Necessary accidents may be **evident** (*bayyin*) or **non-evident** (*ghayr bayyin*). An evident necessary accident is either evident in the narrower or broader sense.

Evident in the narrow sense (*bayyin bi-l-maʿnā al-akhaṣṣ*) means that simply conceiving the underlying subject brings with it conception of what necessarily belongs to it, without a mediating consideration.

Evident in the broad sense (*bayyin bi-l-maʿnā al-aʿamm*) means that conceiving the two terms and their relation is sufficient to establish their necessary connection. For example, two is half of four and a quarter of eight. Someone might conceive two but not spontaneously think of its relation to eight. Once eight and the appropriate numerical relation are brought to mind, the conclusion becomes evident. Similarly, considering the obligation of prayer, ritual ablution, and the dependence of an obligatory prayer upon it leads to acknowledgment of the obligation of its prerequisite.

This broader evidential class includes both what follows upon conceiving the subject alone and what becomes evident only when the other term and their relation are conceived. Repeated familiarity can make the consequence spring to mind immediately whenever the underlying subject is conceived.

Non-evident necessity requires a demonstration beyond conceiving the two terms and their relation. The familiar example is the proposition that the angles of a triangle equal two right angles: assent to this relation depends upon geometrical demonstration, not merely forming the three concepts. In short, evident necessity is immediate, whereas non-evident necessity is discursively established.

Separable accidents are further classified as **permanent in practice**, **quickly passing**, or **slowly passing**. Historical examples include the motion attributed to the sun, a persistently blue eye, blushing with embarrassment, pallor from fear, and the passing stage of youth.

These classifications concern the *logical mode of attribution*, not a guarantee that every traditional natural-scientific example survives modern empirical scrutiny.

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1. **Historical example:** The author uses fire's heat, apparent motion of the Sun, and blue eyes as examples within traditional pedagogy. Their empirical status must not be promoted into timeless demonstrations of physical necessity.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH searchable transcription; 1968 ACO scan not yet independently collated · p. 83–84 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=83&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 15

Logical, natural, and intellectual universals

الكلي المنطقي والطبيعي والعقلي

When we say “the human being is universal,” there are three distinct things to consider: (1) humanity as such; (2) the concept **universal**, considered without attending to which nature it characterizes; and (3) humanity **as characterized by universality**. In other words, we can attend to the subject alone, the attribute alone, or subject and attribute together.

**1. The natural universal (*al-kullī al-ṭabīʿī*). The intellect considers the thing's nature without attending to universality as an additional description. Thus it considers human being* as human being*, as when it predicates “rational animal” of it. The natural universal is the nature itself taken in this manner; it exists outside the mind in and through the existence of its individual instances.

2. The logical universal (*al-kullī al-manṭiqī*). The intellect considers the abstract characteristic of being a universal—“that which may be supposed to apply to many”—without attaching it to any particular nature, such as human, animal, or stone. It exists only in the intellect, for it is a purely mental concept formed by abstraction.

**3. The intellectual universal (*al-kullī al-ʿaqlī*). The intellect considers the nature* precisely as characterized by universality*: human being as a concept capable of application to many. This composite of a nature and a mental attribute exists only in the intellect, since anything existing externally is in fact an individual particular.

Consider the proposition “the surface is above.” One can attend to the surface itself, with its bricks or timber, disregarding whether it is above or below—analogous to the natural universal. One can attend to *aboveness* abstractly and without any particular thing above—analogous to the logical universal. Or one can attend to the surface as *above*—analogous to the intellectual universal.

The distinction separates the nature, the logical property of universality, and the nature insofar as the property is predicated of it. This is essential when comparing the later Ḥikma discussion of *quiddity considered in itself* and its mental predication.

These three modes of consideration apply not only to universality in general but to each of the five predicables and their subdivisions, and even to the particular. Thus one can speak of a *natural species*, a *logical species*, and an *intellectual species*, and similarly of genus and the rest. Natural species is human being considered as such; logical species is the abstract definition “the complete nature common to particulars that differ numerically, in answer to ‘What is it?’”; and intellectual species is human being precisely as so described. The remaining cases follow the same pattern.

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1. **Cross-book reference:** The later Ṭabāṭabāʾī reader discusses the external reality of natural quiddity in Nihāya stage V, but that should not be equated uncritically with every ontological implication of al-Muẓaffar's introductory logical terminology.
2. **Source:** al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, searchable Dār al-Taʿāruf 1402 AH text (preliminary collation, not 1968 printed-scan verified) · p. 84–86
   https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&page=84&type=c_fbook

STAGE I

The Four Questions

مطلب ما وأي وهل ولم

CHAPTER 1

The first question: explaining a word

المرحلة الأولى: التعريف اللفظي

When an expression from any language confronts you, there are five successive stages through which you must pass to attain knowledge. Some seek knowledge by way of conception, and others knowledge by way of assent.

The first stage is to seek an initial, general conception of the expression's meaning. If you do not know which meaning the word has been assigned, you ask a purely linguistic question. The answer is another word signifying that meaning. Thus, if you ask what ghaḍanfar means, the answer is lion; or what sumaydaʿ means, the answer is chief. An answer of this kind is called a verbal definition (taʿrīf lafẓī). Providing such definitions is the responsibility of dictionaries.

1. **Translator's note:** A verbal definition establishes customary signification. It need not yet explain the thing's essential constituents.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 110 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 2

What is it? The explanatory question

المرحلة الثانية: مطلب ما الشارحة

Once you have conceived the word's meaning in a general way, you turn naturally to the second stage: seeking a conception of the meaning's quiddity. That is, you seek an articulation of what the name had indicated only generally, so that the object may be distinguished completely from other objects in the mind. You therefore ask “What is it?” (mā huwa?).

The interrogative mā here is called explanatory (shāriḥa), because it asks for an explanation of what a word signifies. Its answer is called an explanation of the name (sharḥ al-ism), or nominal definition. The primary form of answer combines the proximate genus with the proximate differentia; this is the complete nominal essential definition. One may also answer with the

differentia alone, the proprium alone, either combined with a more remote genus, or the proprium together with the proximate genus. According to the constituents supplied, such accounts are called incomplete essential definitions or complete/incomplete descriptions; but at this stage all remain nominal.

Suppose, however, that a respondent gives only the proximate genus. Asked “What is a date-palm?”, he answers “A tree.” This will not satisfy the questioner, who still wants to know what distinguishes this tree from others. He asks “Which kind of tree is it, essentially?” or “Which kind is it by its distinctive attribute?” The former seeks the differentia; the latter seeks a proprium. This is the proper place of the interrogative “which?” (ayy).

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1. **Translator's note:** Muẓaffar's ‘nominal’ does not mean an arbitrary stipulation: the same account can become a real definition once existence has been established.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 110–111 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 3

Does it exist? Simple and composite hal

المرحلتان الثالثة والرابعة: هل البسيطة وهل المركبة

After learning what the expression means, you move to the third stage: seeking assent to the thing's existence. You ask with hal, the simple existential question (hal basīṭa): “Does such-and-such exist?” or “Is it existent?”

A qualification is necessary. The second and third stages can occur in either order. Their natural order is the one just given, but the questioner may already know that a thing exists, or may ask about its existence first. If existence is known before the general expression has been explained in detail, a subsequent question “What is it?” is called the real or quiddative ‘what?’ (mā ḥaqīqiyya). Its answer is the same as to the explanatory mā. The only difference is that the explanatory question precedes knowledge of the thing's existence, while the real question follows it. Hence an essential definition can be nominal before the simple existential judgment and real afterwards.

Once these stages are completed, one naturally passes to the fourth stage, seeking assent that some attribute or condition belongs to the thing. This is again asked by hal, but now it is the composite question (hal murakkaba), because it asks whether one thing is established of another, presupposing the subject's existence. By contrast, simple hal asks only whether the subject exists. “Does God exist?” is a simple existential inquiry; “Is the existent God willing?” is composite.

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1. **Translator's note:** ‘Simple’ and ‘composite’ distinguish asserting that a subject exists from predicating something further of an existent subject. Neither question by itself provides an essential definition.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 111–113 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 4

Why? The cause of assent and the cause of being

المرحلة الخامسة: مطلب لم

If a respondent has answered either the simple or composite hal, you proceed to the fifth stage: seeking the cause. Sometimes you seek only the ground of the judgment—namely, a demonstration of what the respondent affirmed. At other times you seek both the ground of the judgment and the cause of the fact's existence, so that you know why the thing is actually so.

For either purpose you ask “Why?” (limā?). To seek the ground of an affirmation, for instance, you may ask, “Why is God willing?” To seek both the reason for the judgment and the real cause, you may ask, “Why does a magnet attract iron?” Once someone has answered “Yes” to whether a magnet attracts iron, you are entitled to ask the further question, “Why?”

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1. **Translator's note:** The two senses anticipate the difference between demonstrating that a proposition is true and demonstrating why the fact it reports obtains.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʾarrif) · p. 112–113 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 5

Summary of the inquiries and their subsidiary forms

تلخيص وتعقيب وفروع المطالب

We may summarise the foregoing as follows. “What?” (mā) seeks a conception of the thing's quiddity; it may be explanatory or real. From this interrogative the technical expressions māʾiyya and māhiyya are formed.

“Which?” (ayy) asks how a thing is distinguished, essentially or accidentally, from others sharing its genus, once that genus is known.

“Whether?” (hal) can be simple, seeking assent to the existence or nonexistence of the thing, or composite, seeking assent that something belongs—or does not belong—to something else.

“Why?” (limā) asks either for the cause of the assent alone, or for both the cause of the assent and the cause of the thing's existence.

These are the principal inquiries, whose questions have a universal scope across the sciences. Other inquiries employ “how?”, “where?”, “when?”, “how many?”, and “who?”. These are subsidiary, because they are not applicable to every object: what has no spatial location cannot be asked “where?”, and what has no time cannot be asked “when?”. Moreover, many such questions can be recast as composite hal questions.

1. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 113–114 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

STAGE II

The Defining Account

المعرّف وأقسامه

CHAPTER 1

What is a defining account?

التعريف وأقسامه

Disputes in scientific and other matters frequently arise because the concepts conveyed by the words used remain indeterminate. Mutual understanding is disturbed when the disputants have not agreed on the boundaries of the words' meanings.

Anyone pursuing realities must therefore express the elements of his thought in language that defines and explains them clearly, preserving the intended meaning without exceeding or falling short of it. Sound thinking is built on this basis.

A defining account may be an essential definition (ḥadd) or a description (rasm); either may be complete or incomplete. We have already mentioned verbal definition. Here we are not primarily concerned with it, since it tells us only the meaning assigned to a word. The logician's subject is the previously known conception by which we arrive at a conception not yet known—the kind of account given in answer to explanatory or real mā.

1. **Translator's note:** The Arabic contrast is between ḥadd (essential definition), rasm (description through distinguishing attributes), and taʿrīf lafẓī (lexical explanation).
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 115–116 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 2

The complete essential definition

الحد التام

A complete essential definition states all the essential constituents of what is being defined. It is given through the proximate genus and proximate differentia, because together they encompass all those constituents.

If one asks, “What is a human being?”, the answer may be “A rational animal.” This is complete: it articulates what the word “human” signified without detail and includes all the essential constituents. For “animal” already implies substance, growing body, sensation, and movement by will.

One might instead answer, “A growing body that senses, moves voluntarily, and reasons.” This is also a complete definition, identical in meaning to the first but more fully expanded: the defining account of “animal” has been substituted for the word itself. Such expansion is unnecessary unless the questioner does not understand the quiddity of an animal.

Likewise, an unfamiliar genus may be unfolded by its own definition, if one is available, until the explanation reaches primary and self-evident concepts that require no definition—for example being and thing.

Hence the proximate genus and proximate differentia encompass every essential constituent without omission. A longer complete definition differs from a shorter one in explicitness, not in its intelligible content. The complete definition is conceptually equivalent to what it defines and signifies it directly, by correspondence (muṭābaqa).

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1. **Translator's note:** ‘Being’ (mawjūd) is named here as an immediately understood concept, not as a constituent that must be added to the essential definition of each contingent quiddity.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 117–118 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 3

The incomplete essential definition

الحد الناقص

An incomplete essential definition gives only some of the essential constituents of the thing, but must contain at least its proximate differentia. It therefore may be expressed through a remote genus together with the proximate differentia, or through that differentia alone.

In the first case, one might define a human being as “a growing body … rational,” omitting the intervening determination “sentient and moving by will.” In the second, one might say simply “rational,” dropping the entire proximate genus. The second is even less complete.

Three points follow. First, the incomplete definition is not conceptually equivalent to what it defines, because it states only part of its essential content, although its extension may coincide with the thing being defined. Second, it does not supply a complete mental conception of the

thing's quiddity. At most it distinguishes the thing essentially from everything else. Third, it signifies the whole by necessary implication (iltizām) rather than by direct correspondence, since a distinctive essential part points to the whole.

1. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 118 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 4

Complete and incomplete descriptions

الرسم التام والرسم الناقص

A complete description (rasm tāmm) combines the genus with a proprium (khāṣṣa): for example, “a laughing animal” as an account of the human being. It includes an essential constituent—the genus—and a distinctive but nonessential attribute—the proprium. For this reason it is called complete.

An incomplete description (rasm nāqiṣ) employs the proprium alone, as when a human being is described as “laughing” or “capable of laughter.” Because it contains only an accidental predicate, it is incomplete.

According to another formulation, genus plus proprium counts as complete only when the genus is the proximate one; a remote genus plus proprium remains an incomplete description.

In either case, a description, like an incomplete essential definition, serves to distinguish its subject from all other things. But it does so through what is extrinsic to the quiddity. It agrees with what it describes in the things to which it applies, not in the meaning it articulates, and points to it by implication rather than by a statement of the complete essence.

1. **Translator's note:** Here ‘accidental’ (ʿaraḍī) means extrinsic to the quiddity. A proprium need not be temporally separable or contingent in the ordinary English sense.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 119 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 5

Why definitions are difficult

إنارة

The primary form of definition is the complete essential definition, for the aim of defining is twofold: first, to conceive the thing through its true quiddity, so that a clear and fully articulated representation of it arises in the soul; second, to distinguish it completely from everything else in the mind. Only a complete essential definition achieves both aims.

Where the first aim is unattainable, one must be content with the second. An incomplete essential definition or either kind of description may provide it. If an essential distinction is available, an incomplete essential definition is preferable to a description; among descriptions, the complete is preferable to the incomplete.

Yet scholars acknowledge that grasping things' true essences and differentiæ is extraordinarily difficult and may be unattainable. Many of the differentiæ customarily given are really necessary proprieties that disclose the true differentia without themselves being that differentia. Thus most—or perhaps all—of the definitions available to us are descriptions resembling essential definitions.

Accordingly, one should select an evident and necessary distinctive attribute, one that best reveals the thing's reality and most closely resembles its differentia. An obscure attribute will not serve to explain the thing to an ordinary questioner.

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1. **Translator's note:** The passage itself qualifies the theory of ḥadd: satisfying the formal schema ‘genus + differentia’ does not mean the alleged differentia has actually been shown to be the real one.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 120 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 6

Definitions by example and by comparison

التعريف بالمثال والتشبيه

Scholars, especially those concerned with language and literature, often explain a thing by citing one of its instances as an example. This is definition by example, and it is particularly accessible to beginners seeking to understand and distinguish things.

A related educational procedure is inductive instruction: before stating the definition or general rule, the author or teacher supplies many examples and exercises, allowing the student to infer the common conception or rule independently. Only then is the result expressed clearly, so that the learner can compare the explicit statement with what he has discovered.

Definition by example is not a fifth fundamental kind of definition. It is subordinate to explaining something through a distinctive feature, and hence falls under incomplete description.

Similarly, definition by resemblance explains an unfamiliar thing by comparing it with something already known through a relevant likeness. An example is the comparison of existence with light: each is manifest in itself and makes other things manifest.

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1. **Translator's note:** The light comparison illustrates a point; it is not itself a proof that existence is literally a species of light.
2. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 121–122 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

STAGE III

Conditions of Definition

شروط التعريف

CHAPTER 1

A definition must be coextensive and clearer

شروط التعريف: الأول والثاني

The point of a definition is to make its subject intelligible and distinguish it from everything else. Five conditions are therefore required.

First, the defining account must be coextensive with what it defines. It must be both exclusive (māniʿ) and inclusive (jāmiʿ): exclusive because it applies to nothing outside the subject's extension, and inclusive because it applies to every instance of the subject without exception.

Accordingly, an account too broad is invalid: “a two-legged animal” does not exclusively identify the human being, since other animals walk on two legs. An account too narrow is likewise invalid: “an educated animal” excludes many human beings. Nor may a completely disparate description define the subject, because the two do not apply to the same instances.

Second, the defining expression must be clearer and better known to the addressee than what is being defined. Otherwise it fails to explain. One should not explain an unknown term through something equally obscure—for example by defining one of two correlatives solely through the other when both are equally unfamiliar—nor through something still more obscure, as though explaining light by saying that it is a power resembling existence.

1. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 123–124 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 2

No self-definition and no circularity

شروط التعريف: الثالث والرابع

Third, the defining account must not be identical in meaning with its subject, when a real rather than a merely verbal definition is intended. To explain “motion” by the synonymous “transition,” or “human being” by the synonymous “person,” provides no new intelligible determination. The two expressions must differ either as an implicit content differs from its explicit analysis, as in a complete essential definition, or by a distinct conception which makes the subject known. Otherwise knowledge of the subject would be presupposed in the very attempt to acquire it.

Fourth, the account must not be circular. Circularity arises when the expression offered to explain the subject is itself unintelligible except through that subject. The subject then becomes part of its own explanation.

Explicit circularity occurs when the sun is defined as a star that rises during the day, while day is defined as the time during which the sun rises. Knowing the sun presupposes knowing day, which in turn presupposes knowing the sun.

Concealed circularity may involve several mediating steps. Suppose “two” is explained as the first even number, “even” through division into equals, “equals” through two matching things, and “two things” through the number two. The circuit eventually returns to the very notion it was meant to explain.

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1. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 124–126 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

CHAPTER 3

Unambiguous language in definitions

شروط التعريف: الخامس

Fifth, a definition must be expressed in clear, unambiguous language. One should not employ obscure, rare, or unfamiliar expressions, nor equivocal or figurative terms without an indication fixing the intended sense. Where such an indication is present, the use of these terms is not formally prohibited; nevertheless, scientific definitions and argument should generally avoid metaphor when greater precision is available.

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1. **Source:** Muḥammad Riḍā al-Muẓaffar, al-Manṭiq, Book III (al-Muʿarrif) · p. 126 https://lib.rafed.net/view.php?b_id=1604&type=c_fbook

53 original passages; 53 with working English. Not a specialist-certified critical edition.